

LOAD: Load-Aware Dual-Price Routing for Cross-Layer Secure Relay in Multi-Layer NTN

Hyeonsu Lyu, *Member, IEEE*, Hyeonho Noh, *Member, IEEE*,
Hyun Jong Yang, *Senior Member, IEEE*, and Kaushik Chowdhury, *Fellow, IEEE*

Abstract—As a key enabler of borderless and ubiquitous connectivity, multi-layer non-terrestrial networks (NTNs) are expected to be a cornerstone of 6G wireless communications. However, the multi-tiered and global-scale nature of these networks amplifies security vulnerabilities due to hidden eavesdroppers whose channels and locations cannot be observed. This paper introduces a joint optimization framework for multi-hop relaying in multi-layer NTNs that maximizes the minimum user throughput while ensuring that the probability of a strictly positive secrecy capacity (SPSC) remains above a prescribed threshold. We derive a tractable closed-form SPSC approximation under cooperative jamming, and an $\mathcal{O}(1)$ globally optimal frequency allocation and transmit-jamming power-splitting strategy for any fixed relay topology, reducing the joint radio-resource-and-routing problem to minimax relay-load routing. We then introduce **LOAD**, a self-supervised graph neural network that predicts prospective relay prices to guide feasible path selection without optimal-route or dual-price labels. **LOAD** improves mean max-min throughput over baseline routing schemes by up to 2.15 kbps at a 10^{-3} SPSC outage target, tracking max-min secrecy throughput within 3%. We further construct position-data-driven testbeds from satellite, maritime, and cellular deployment data and validate **LOAD** under geographically constrained relay opportunities and spatially heterogeneous security conditions, demonstrating its practical effectiveness in deployment-informed network settings. The dataset and supplementary material are available at <https://github.com/hslyu/sagsin-dataset>.

Index Terms—Non-terrestrial network, multi-hop relay, graph neural network, max-min throughput.

I. INTRODUCTION

NON-TERRESTRIAL networks (NTNs) extend connectivity to underserved regions by complementing terrestrial infrastructure with multi-layer satellite, aerial, and maritime platforms, forming space-air-ground-sea integrated networks (SAGSINs) [1], [2]. Given that the source and the user are often separated by distances far exceeding the range of a single link, end-to-end connectivity across these layers typically relies on multi-hop relaying. However, the broad wireless coverage and predominantly line-of-sight propagation characteristic of SAGSIN links substantially increase the risk of eavesdropping [2]–[4]. Moreover, the passive and geographically dispersed nature of eavesdroppers (Eves) makes their in-

stantaneous channels and locations difficult to acquire in large-scale SAGSINs. Accordingly, reliable multi-hop connectivity in SAGSINs requires the links to maintain a guaranteed level of secrecy, which becomes challenging to sustain when relay resources are shared among multiple competing flows.

This creates a fundamental cross-layer challenge since security requirements introduce resource overhead that propagates through shared relays, thereby affecting the network-wide throughput. Cooperative jamming, for example, improves secrecy against wiretapping but reduces the power available for data transmission [5], [6]. The resulting loss in link efficiency increases the bandwidth required by the flows traversing the corresponding relays, potentially creating network bottlenecks. Secure routing must jointly account for link secrecy feasibility and the network-wide load required to secure relay routes.

Prior work has mainly treated physical-layer secrecy (PLS) and radio resource management (RRM) as separate design problems. PLS studies optimize secrecy performance for predefined link or relay configurations, whereas statistical secure-routing studies select individual source–destination paths under fixed or preassigned RRM [7]–[19]. Conversely, multi-hop RRM studies optimize routing and resource sharing while taking link security feasibility and efficiency as given [20], [21]. However, how statistical eavesdropping risk interacts with network topology and shared relay resources to determine network utility remains unsolved.

This gap motivates the following research question:

How much throughput does a SAGSIN sacrifice to guarantee secrecy against hidden Eves?

We consider passive Eves whose instantaneous channels and locations are unknown but whose spatial distributions can be statistically characterized. We formulate secure multi-hop relaying as a max-min throughput problem subject to a prescribed strictly positive secrecy capacity (SPSC) probability on each selected hop. The formulation jointly optimizes relay topology, bandwidth allocation, and transmit-jamming power without instantaneous eavesdropper channel state information. Our numerical results further show that max-min throughput closely tracks max-min secrecy throughput under the stringent SPSC targets relevant to secure operation.

Routing determines the required jamming and bandwidth, while the resulting spectral efficiencies and relay loads determine which routes are desirable. To make this coupling tractable, we derive a closed-form SPSC approximation that converts Eve statistics into SPSC-feasible links and jamming requirements. For any feasible topology, the optimal band-

Hyeonsu Lyu and Hyun Jong Yang are with the Department of Electrical and Computer Engineering, and also with the Institute of New Media and Communications, Seoul National University, Seoul, South Korea (e-mail: hs.lyu, hjyang@snu.ac.kr). Hyeonho Noh is with Department of Information & Communication Engineering, Hanbat National University, Korea (e-mail: hhnoh@hanbat.ac.kr). Kaushik Chowdhury is a Chandra Family Endowed Distinguished Professor in the Department of Electrical and Computer Engineering, University of Texas at Austin, USA (email: kaushik@utexas.edu). Hyun Jong Yang and Kaushik Chowdhury are corresponding authors.

width and transmit-jamming power allocation are obtained in closed form, reducing the original cross-layer problem to minimax normalized relay-load routing. Hidden Eves consequently reduce throughput through two mechanisms: they remove links that cannot satisfy the SPSC target and increase relay loads through the jamming required on the remaining links.

The remaining routing problem is combinatorial even after eliminating the RRM variables, since each user's path selection affects the routing decisions for subsequent users. We therefore propose **load-aware dual-price routing (LOAD)**, which predicts prospective relay prices from the partial topology and the demand of unconnected users. **LOAD** combines these prices with analytical load increments and fixed-hop shortest-path decoding to construct SPSC-feasible routes. It learns only the future bottleneck information unavailable to the analytical model, while security feasibility, RRM, and path decoding remain model-based. Its self-supervised training requires neither globally optimal routes nor ground-truth dual-price labels.

The contributions of this work are summarized as follows:

- **Cross-layer secure-relaying formulation:** We formulate multi-user, multi-hop relaying under hidden Eves as a max-min throughput problem with a SPSC target, jointly optimizing routing, bandwidth, and transmit-jamming power. We further demonstrate that max-min throughput provides a practically accurate surrogate for max-min secrecy throughput in the stringent-security regime.
- **Statistical-security reduction:** We derive a tractable SPSC approximation with cooperative jamming, extending prior no-jamming analyses [15]–[17], and characterize its approximation gap and residual bias. The SPSC target is converted into an explicit feasible-link graph and corresponding jamming requirements, translating the statistical threat model into deterministic quantities usable by network control.
- **Optimal RRM-Assisted Dual-Price Routing:** For each feasible topology, we derive globally optimal bandwidth allocation and transmit-jamming power splitting in $\mathcal{O}(1)$ time, reducing the joint problem to minimax relay-load routing. **LOAD** exploits the reduced problem's dual structure by combining learned prospective bottleneck prices with analytical load increments and fixed-hop decoding. Without optimal-route or dual-price labels, **LOAD** achieves a max-min throughput within 3% of **Exhaustive search**.

II. RELATED WORKS

We survey recent physical-layer security (PLS) and secure routing approaches in SAGSINs, summarized in Table I.

A. Secure Communications in SAGSINs

[3] proposes an aerial bridge scheme using UAVs to form secure tunnels and reduce the eavesdropping footprint. [7] enhances secrecy rate via a joint UAV deployment and power allocation using successive convex approximation to decouple complex multi-layer constraints, and [8] further enhances security by optimizing UAV trajectory and power with a hybrid FSO/RF scheme that mitigates RF vulnerabilities through optical satellite links. Similarly, [9] combines UAV-assisted non-orthogonal multiple access with cooperative jamming to

TABLE I
SUMMARY OF THE RELATED WORKS IN SEC. II

Ref.	Archit.	Eve CSI	RA	PC	Jam.	# Hops	LC	Solver
[3]	SAGIN	Known	×	×	×	Two	×	Analytic
[7]–[9]	SAGIN	Known	×	○	○	Two	×	CVX
[4]	SAGIN	Known	×	○	×	–	×	DL
[10]	SAGIN	Known	×	○	×	Two	×	DRL
[22],[23]	SAGIN	Unknown	×	×	×	Multi	×	Heuristic
[24]	Aerial	Unknown	×	×	×	Multi	×	Heuristic
[11]	Aerial	Known	×	×	○	Multi	×	Heuristic
[12]	SAGIN	Known	×	×	○	Multi	×	Analytic
[13]	SAGIN	Known	×	×	×	Multi	×	Analytic
Ours	SAGSIN	Unknown	○	○	○	Multi	○	Analytic+GNN

RA: Frequency resource allocation, PC: Power control, Jam.: Jamming, # Hops: Number of relay hops, LC: Inter-user load-coupled routing

counter both internal and external eavesdropping threats in SAGINs. [4] proposes a label-free deep learning framework that dynamically selects access strategies to maximize sum secrecy rate. [10] optimizes HAPs trajectories and beamforming by employing a generative AI-based DRL framework for proactive adaptation and improved secrecy energy efficiency under dynamic channel changes.

These studies improve secrecy performance through system configuration and physical-layer optimization, but consider prescribed connectivity or at most two-hop relaying with known Eve CSI. Wide-area SAGSINs require secure multi-hop routing without instantaneous Eve CSI. In this setting, each path changes shared-relay loads and the routing opportunities of subsequent users.

B. Secure Routing in NTN

[22] presents hierarchical control for secure and QoS-aware routing in SAGINs, and [23] designs an artificial bee colony routing protocol for UAV networks. [24] develops position-aware routing against wormhole and blackhole attacks in airborne mesh networks. These works advance protocol-level path selection without modeling the aggregate resource loads created when multiple user routes share relays.

Physical-layer relay studies consider complementary security mechanisms. [11] jointly designs collaborative beamforming and UAV operation for secure, energy-efficient relaying. [12] analyzes satellite-terrestrial relaying with a friendly jammer, and [13] studies secure relay selection and user scheduling in hybrid satellite-terrestrial networks. These studies analyze secure relay configurations for given links but do not construct a shared multi-user routing tree.

The closest line of research is statistical secrecy-outage-aware routing with jammers [17]–[19]. These studies incorporate statistical eavesdropping risk into individual source-destination path selection under fixed radio resources. Their path evaluation therefore does not capture how resource consumption changes shared-relay loads and the routing opportunities of subsequent users.

The remaining gap is load-coupled multi-user routing under SPSC constraints. Multiple user paths share relay bandwidth and power, so each committed path changes relay loads, may shift the network bottleneck, and affects subsequent routing

decisions. SPSC constraints strengthen this coupling by removing insecure links and determining the jamming power and spectral efficiency of the remaining links. The surveyed methods do not jointly optimize such routes with frequency allocation and transmit-jamming power under unknown Eve CSI. This gap motivates the cross-layer formulation and prospective relay-price prediction developed in this paper.

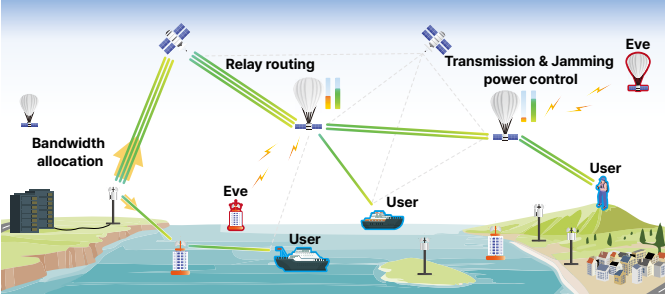


Fig. 1. Target SAGSIN scenario where a source securely relays data to multiple users through intermediate nodes.

III. SYSTEM MODEL

A. Scenario Description

This paper aims to construct a secure relaying route in the SAGSIN, with consideration of radio resources, keeping the SPSC probability above a certain threshold in the presence of the hidden Eves. Fig. 1 illustrates the target scenario with three control variables. The SAGSIN relay deploys decode-and-forward relay where throughput is inversely proportional to the number of relay hops [25]. The nodes transmit predefined jamming signals with the data signal to degrade Eve's wiretap ability by reducing the SINR of the wiretap channel [5]. Then, legitimate nodes can recover the original data by decoding the known jamming patterns [26].

The index set of Eves is defined as $\mathcal{M}$. Eves are present at each network layer to wiretap legitimate communications. As the locations of Eves are unknown, their locations are modeled by independent homogeneous Poisson point processes (HPPPs) with densities λ_1 , λ_2 , λ_3 , and λ_4 for the maritime, ground, HAP, and LEO layers, respectively.

We define the index set of nodes as $\mathcal{I} = \{0, 1, \dots, I\}$. A total of U users are served through the multi-hop relays, where the user index set is denoted as $\mathcal{U} = \{1, \dots, U\}$. The binary variable $x_{(i,j)} \in \{0, 1\}$ indicates whether there exists a hop between the i -th and j -th nodes. The location of the i -th node and Eve e are denoted as $\mathbf{p}_i$ and $\mathbf{p}_e$, respectively. All notations and variables are summarized in Table III on Appendix A in the supplementary material.

B. Propagation Model and Secrecy Metrics

The instantaneous received SNR of the legitimate hop between node i and j , if any, can be given as

$$\text{SNR}_{(i,j)}^s = \frac{\rho_i G_{(i,j)} |h_{(i,j)}^s|^2}{n_0 (d_{(i,j)}^s)^{\alpha_i}}, \quad (1)$$

where $G_{(i,j)}$ is the antenna gain, $d_{(i,j)}^s = \|\mathbf{p}_i - \mathbf{p}_j\|_2$ is a distance between; ρ_i is the power density, $h_{(i,j)}^s$ is small-scale

fading, and n_0 is the noise spectral density. The path loss exponent α_i is determined based on the network layer in which node i is located. Meanwhile, the SNR of wiretap link for node i and Eve k can be defined as

$$\text{SNR}_{(i,e)}^e = \frac{\rho_i G_{(i,e)} |h_{(i,e)}^e|^2 (d_{(i,e)}^e)^{-\alpha_i}}{\sigma_i G_{(i,e)} |h_{(i,e)}^e|^2 (d_{(i,e)}^e)^{-\alpha_i} + n_0}, \quad (2)$$

where σ_i is the power spectral density of the transmitted jamming signal [27]–[29] and $h_{(i,e)}^e$ is small-scale fading. we adopt a conservative worst-case model in which an eavesdropper is assumed to experience the same antenna gain as the intended receiver, where $G_{(i,e)} = G_{(i,j)}$. In addition, the legitimate receiver can cancel the coordinate jamming signal through prior randomness, whereas passive Eves cannot. Hence, the jamming term appears only in the wiretap SINR.

The transmission power density of node i is bounded by $P_i^{\max}$ and $P_i^{\min}$, denoted as

$$\rho_i + \sigma_i \leq P_i^{\max}, \quad \rho_i \geq P_i^{\min} \quad \forall i \in \mathcal{I}. \quad (3)$$

In the presence of multiple Eves, the secrecy capacity of the link between nodes i and j is defined as

$$C_{(i,j)} = \left[\log_2(1 + \text{SNR}_{(i,j)}^s) - \log_2(1 + \max_{e \in \mathcal{M}} \text{SNR}_{(i,e)}^e) \right]^+. \quad (4)$$

Then, as introduced in [6], [30]–[32], the SPSC probability between node i and j is defined as $\mathbb{P}_{(i,j)} = \mathbb{P}(C_{(i,j)} > 0)$. For threshold $\tau > 0$, the SPSC constraint can be denoted as

$$\mathbb{P}_{(i,j)} \geq x_{(i,j)} \tau. \quad (5)$$

C. Multi-hop Relay Routing Topology

The routing problem is generally considered as finding a sub-graph of directed graph $\mathcal{G}_{\text{all}} = (\mathcal{N}, \mathcal{E})$ where $\mathcal{N} \subset \mathcal{I} \cup \mathcal{U}$ and $\mathcal{E} \subset \{(i, j) | i, j \in \mathcal{N}\}$. This represents that nodes and users are the graph nodes and the relay hops are the graph edges [20], [21]. The graph follows a spanning tree (ST) topology, which refers to an acyclic graph where all nodes have a single path to the root node [33]. We define $\mathcal{E}_u$ to denote a relay from node 0 to user u , and

$$x_{(i,j)} = \begin{cases} 1, & \text{if } (i, j) \in \mathcal{E} \\ 0, & \text{otherwise} \end{cases}, \quad x_{(i,j),u} = \begin{cases} 1, & \text{if } (i, j) \in \mathcal{E}_u \\ 0, & \text{otherwise} \end{cases} \quad (6)$$

to indicate whether edge (i, j) belongs to the edge set of graph $\mathcal{G}$ and edge (i, j) belongs to $\mathcal{E}_u$. The root node 0 has no incoming edge, whereas every other node has exactly one:

$$\sum_{i \in \mathcal{N}} x_{(i,0)} = 0, \quad \sum_{j \in \mathcal{N}} x_{(j,i)} = 1, \quad \forall i \in \mathcal{N} \setminus \{0\}. \quad (7)$$

We introduce a *cut-based* constraint to express that graph $\mathcal{G}$ has a ST topology. Every nonempty subset $S \subseteq \mathcal{N} \setminus \{0\}$ must have at least one selected edge entering from $\mathcal{N} \setminus S$, where

$$\sum_{i \notin S, j \in S} x_{(i,j)} \geq 1, \quad \forall S \subset \mathcal{N} \setminus \{0\}, \quad S \neq \emptyset. \quad (8)$$

This constraint prevents disconnected routes by ensuring that every node is reachable from the root through a directed path, thereby enforcing the ST topology.

Relay throughput. The nodes dynamically allocate bandwidth and transmit power on the backhaul link to maximize the network utility. We define $\beta_{(i,j),u}$ to represent the allocated bandwidth of user u at link (i,j) ; and the spectral efficiency $\gamma_{(i,j)}$ between node i and j as¹

$$\gamma_{(i,j)} = \log_2 (1 + \text{SNR}_{(i,j)}^s). \quad (9)$$

For user u , let $h_u = \sum_{(i,j) \in \mathcal{E}} x_{(i,j),u}$ denote the number of hops in its route. In the multi-hop routing problem, the end-to-end throughput of user u and the system-wide minimum throughput are determined by the bottleneck link as

$$\min_{u \in \mathcal{U}, (i,j) \in \mathcal{E}_u} \frac{\beta_{(i,j),u} \gamma_{(i,j)}}{h_u}. \quad (10)$$

IV. PROBLEM FORMULATION AND PROPOSED SOLUTION

We aim to max-min throughput across the network, ensuring fair service for users accessing source via multiple hops. Prior literature has extensively explored SPSC probability guarantees in terrestrial multi-hop networks [16], [17], [34]. Similarly, the relay routing that ensures users' QoS while achieving the optimal secure connection probability has also been investigated [35], [36]. The remaining gap is load-coupled multi-user routing under SPSC constraints. In this setting, each route changes the shared-relay loads and routing opportunities of subsequent users.

For brevity of notations, let $\mathbf{B} = \{\beta_{(i,j),u} : i, j \in \mathcal{N}, u \in \mathcal{U}\}$, $\mathbf{P} = \{\rho_i : i \in \mathcal{N}\}$, and $\mathbf{J} = \{\sigma_i : i \in \mathcal{N}\}$. The max-min throughput problem is formulated as

$$\mathcal{P}_1 : \max_{\mathcal{G}, \mathbf{B}, \mathbf{P}, \mathbf{J}} \min_{\substack{u \in \mathcal{U}, \\ (i,j) \in \mathcal{E}_u}} \frac{\beta_{(i,j),u} \gamma_{(i,j)}}{h_u} \quad (\mathcal{P}_1\text{a})$$

$$\text{s.t. } \mathbb{P}_{(i,j)} \geq x_{(i,j),\tau}, \quad (\mathcal{P}_1\text{b})$$

$$(7), (8) \quad (\mathcal{P}_1\text{c})$$

$$\sum_{j \in \mathcal{N}} \sum_{u \in \mathcal{U}} \beta_{(i,j),u} \leq B, \quad (\mathcal{P}_1\text{d})$$

$$\rho_i + \sigma_i \leq P_i^{\max}, \quad (\mathcal{P}_1\text{e})$$

$$\beta_{(i,j),u} \geq 0, \rho_i \geq P_i^{\min}, \sigma_i \geq 0. \quad (\mathcal{P}_1\text{f})$$

Constraint $(\mathcal{P}_1\text{b})$ represents the threshold of the secrecy connection probability; $(\mathcal{P}_1\text{c})$ is related to the graph topology; $(\mathcal{P}_1\text{d})$ is the frequency resource constraint; $(\mathcal{P}_1\text{e})$ pertains to the transmission and jamming power constraint; and $(\mathcal{P}_1\text{f})$ ensures the positivity of resource variables.

There are two main challenges in Problem $\mathcal{P}_1$. First, the SPSC probability $\mathbb{P}_{(i,j)}$ admits no known closed-form expression. Numerical computation of $(\mathcal{P}_1\text{b})$ is computationally impractical, so limiting feasible-set construction under stringent compute budgets. Second, routing and RRM are bidirectionally coupled through $(\mathcal{P}_1\text{a})$ and $(\mathcal{P}_1\text{b})$. Its joint optimization entails a combinatorial search over routing topologies and their induced RRM [37]. This paper addresses these challenges by deriving a closed-form SPSC approximation and analytically solving the optimal RRM for a given routing, thereby reducing the joint problem to graph optimization.

¹The ergodic spectral efficiency $\mathbb{E}_{|h_{(i,j)}^s|^2} [\log_2(1 + \text{SNR}_{(i,j)}^s)]$ is approximated as $\log_2(1 + \rho_i/[n_0(d_{(i,j)}^s)^{\alpha_i}])$. Appendix B validates that this approximation remains accurate over the practical SNR range in this work.

A. Closed-Form Approximation of the SPSC Probability

For a hop between node i and j , the SPSC probability is defined from (4) as

$$\mathbb{P}_{(i,j)} = \mathbb{P}\left(\log_2\left(\frac{1 + \text{SNR}_{(i,j)}^s}{1 + \max_{e \in \mathcal{M}} \text{SNR}_{(i,e)}^e}\right) > 0\right) \quad (11)$$

$$= \mathbb{P}(\text{SNR}_{(i,j)}^s > \max_{e \in \mathcal{M}} \text{SNR}_{(i,e)}^e) \quad (12)$$

$$= \mathbb{E}_{|h|^2, \mathcal{M}} \left[\prod_{e \in \mathcal{M}} \mathbb{P}(\text{SNR}_{(i,j)}^s > \text{SNR}_{(i,e)}^e) \right]. \quad (13)$$

Equation (13) is derived from the property of HPPP and $\mathbb{P}(C > \max\{\gamma_1, \dots, \gamma_n\}) = \mathcal{P}(C > \gamma_1, \dots, C > \gamma_n)$.

We define $\lambda_i \in \{\lambda_1, \lambda_2, \lambda_3, \lambda_4\}$ as the Eve density of the network layer that node i belongs to. The probability generating functional of HPPP [15] results in $\mathbb{E}_{\mathcal{M}}[\prod_{e \in \mathcal{M}} f(\mathbf{p}_e)] = \exp(-\lambda_i \int_{\mathbb{R}^2} 1 - f(\mathbf{p}_e) d\mathbf{p}_e)$. Then, $\mathbb{P}_{(i,j)}$ becomes

$$\begin{aligned} \mathbb{P}_{(i,j)} &= \mathbb{E}_{|h|^2} \left[\exp \left[-\lambda_i \int_{\mathbb{R}^2} \mathbb{P}(\text{SNR}_{(i,j)}^s < \text{SNR}_{(i,e)}^e) d\mathbf{p}_e \right] \right] \quad (14) \\ &= \mathbb{E}_{|h|^2} \left[\exp \left[\underbrace{\left(-\lambda_i \int_{\mathbb{R}^2} \mathbb{P} \left(\frac{|h_{(i,j)}^s|^2 (d_{(i,e)}^e)^{\alpha_i} n_0}{(d_{(i,j)}^s)^{\alpha_i} n_0 - \sigma_i G_{(i,j)} |h_{(i,j)}^s|^2} < |h_{(i,e)}^e|^2 \right) d\mathbf{p}_e \right)}_{(\mathbf{a})} \right] \right]. \end{aligned}$$

From $|h_{(i,e)}^e|^2 \sim \text{Exp}(1)$,² (14) simplifies to

$$\mathbb{P}_{(i,j)} = \mathbb{E}_{|h|^2} \left[\exp \left[-\lambda_i \underbrace{\int_{\mathbb{R}^2} \exp(-\mathbf{a}) d\mathbf{p}_e}_{(\mathbf{b})} \right] \right]. \quad (15)$$

Direct integral of (15) results in

$$(\mathbf{b}) = \frac{2\pi}{\alpha_i} \Gamma\left(\frac{2}{\alpha_i}\right) (d_{(i,j)}^s)^2 \left(\frac{|h_{(i,j)}^s|^2}{1 - \frac{\sigma_i G_{(i,j)}}{(d_{(i,j)}^s)^{\alpha_i} n_0} |h_{(i,j)}^s|^2} \right)^{-\frac{2}{\alpha_i}}. \quad (16)$$

Applying Jensen's inequality with $\kappa_i = \lambda_i \frac{2\pi}{\alpha_i} \Gamma(\frac{2}{\alpha_i})$ yields

$$\begin{aligned} \tilde{\mathbb{P}}_{(i,j)} &= \mathbb{E}_{|h|^2} \left[\exp \left[-\lambda_i (\mathbf{b}) \right] \right] = \quad (17) \\ &\exp \left[-\kappa_i \left[\Gamma\left(1 - \frac{2}{\alpha_i}\right) - \frac{2\sigma_i G_{(i,j)}}{\alpha_i (d_{(i,j)}^s)^{\alpha_i} n_0} \Gamma\left(2 - \frac{2}{\alpha_i}\right) \right] (d_{(i,j)}^s)^2 \right] \end{aligned}$$

We remark that $\tilde{\mathbb{P}}_{(i,j)}$ recovers the closed-form SPSC probability without jamming derived in [15] when $\sigma_i = 0$, which confirms that the derivation well generalizes the existing result to additionally consider for jamming.

The approximation gap $\mathbb{P}_{(i,j)} - \tilde{\mathbb{P}}_{(i,j)}$ is bounded by the variance of $-\lambda_i (\mathbf{b})$, as the Jensen approximation of moment generating function is bounded by $\frac{1}{2} \lambda_i^2 \text{Var}(\mathbf{b})$. For $C = ((d_{(i,j)}^s)^{\alpha_i} n_0 - \sigma_i G_{(i,j)} |h_{(i,j)}^s|^2)^{-1}$ a large eavesdropping range R , this bound can be further computed as

$$\mathbb{P}_{(i,j)} - \tilde{\mathbb{P}}_{(i,j)} \leq \frac{\lambda_i^2 \pi^3}{2C} \left(\ln R - \frac{\pi}{4} \right). \quad (18)$$

A detailed derivation of (17) and the approximation-gap analysis in (18) are provided in Appendices C and D, respectively.

²The Monte-Carlo comparison in Fig. 3 includes Rayleigh, Rician, and shadowed-Rician fading. The derivation assumes unit-mean Rayleigh fading for both the legitimate and wiretap links.

B. Optimal Frequency Resource Allocation

We first look into how the optimal $\mathbf{B}$ is obtained for given $\mathcal{G}, \mathbf{P}, \mathbf{J}$. Adopting auxiliary variable η , $\mathcal{P}_1$ with fixed $\mathcal{G}, \mathbf{P}, \mathbf{J}$ can be considered as

$$\mathcal{P}_2 : \max_{\mathbf{B}, \eta} \eta \quad (\mathcal{P}_2\text{a})$$

$$\text{s.t. } \beta_{(i,j),u} \gamma_{(i,j)} h_u^{-1} \geq x_{(i,j),u} \eta \quad (\mathcal{P}_2\text{b})$$

$$\sum_{j \in \mathcal{N}} \sum_{u \in \mathcal{U}} \beta_{(i,j),u} \leq B. \quad (\mathcal{P}_2\text{c})$$

The Lagrangian function of $\mathcal{P}_2$ is

$$\begin{aligned} \mathcal{L}(\mathbf{B}, \eta, \boldsymbol{\lambda}, \mu) = & \eta + \sum_{\lambda_{(i,j),u} \in \boldsymbol{\lambda}} \lambda_{(i,j),u} \left(x_{(i,j),u} \eta - \frac{\beta_{(i,j),u} \gamma_{(i,j)}}{h_u} \right) \\ & + \mu \left(\sum_{j \in \mathcal{N}} \sum_{u \in \mathcal{U}} \beta_{(i,j),u} - B \right) \end{aligned} \quad (19)$$

for $\boldsymbol{\lambda} = \{\lambda_{(i,j),u} : i, j \in \mathcal{N}, u \in \mathcal{U}\}$. The first-order optimality condition on (19), $\delta \mathcal{L} / \delta \eta = 0$, $\delta \mathcal{L} / \delta \beta_{(i,j),u} = 0$, gives

$$\eta = \left(\sum \lambda_{(i,j),u} x_{(i,j),u} \right)^{-\frac{1}{2}}, \quad \lambda_{(i,j),u} = \mu h_u / \gamma_{(i,j)}. \quad (20)$$

The optimal resource allocation $\beta_{(i,j),u}^*$ occurs when all frequency resources are fully utilized, which corresponds to the equality condition of $(\mathcal{P}_2\text{c})$. Otherwise, we have $\mu = \lambda_{(i,j),u} = 0$ and η in (20) is not defined according to complementary slackness of the KKT conditions. Similarly, the equality condition of $(\mathcal{P}_2\text{b})$ should be satisfied as well.

This can be expressed mathematically as

$$x_{(i,j),u} \eta - \frac{\beta_{(i,j),u}^* \gamma_{(i,j)}}{h_u} = 0, \quad \sum_{j \in \mathcal{N}} \sum_{u \in \mathcal{U}} \beta_{(i,j),u}^* = B. \quad (21)$$

Solving the above equations with respect to $\beta_{(i,j),u}^*$ results in

$$\beta_{(i,j),u}^* = B \frac{x_{(i,j),u} h_u}{\gamma_{(i,j)}} \left(\sum_{j \in \mathcal{N}} \sum_{u \in \mathcal{U}} \frac{x_{(i,j),u} h_u}{\gamma_{(i,j)}} \right)^{-1}. \quad (22)$$

C. Optimal Power Allocation

For fixed $\mathcal{E}$, we can reformulate $\mathcal{P}_1$ by plugging in (22) and introducing an auxiliary variable η as

$$\mathcal{P}_3 : \max_{\mathbf{P}, \mathbf{J}, \eta} \eta \quad (\mathcal{P}_3\text{a})$$

$$\text{s.t. } \eta \sum_{j \in \mathcal{N}} \sum_{u \in \mathcal{U}} \frac{x_{(i,j),u} h_u}{\gamma_{(i,j)}} \leq B, \quad (\mathcal{P}_3\text{b})$$

$$(\mathcal{P}_1\text{b}), (\mathcal{P}_1\text{e}), \rho_i \geq P_i^{\min}, \sigma_i \geq 0. \quad (\mathcal{P}_3\text{c})$$

We rigorously prove the following argument by exploring KKT conditions: *The optimal throughput is attained at the maximum transmission power allowed by the system.* We first simplify the constraints and then demonstrate that the maximum achievable transmission power is determined by the minimum jamming power density.

As $d_{(i,j)}^s$ are fixed for given $\mathcal{E}$, the SPSC probability (17) can be viewed as a function of σ_i , denoted as $\mathbb{P}_{(i,j)}(\sigma_i)$. As $\mathbb{P}_{(i,j)}(\sigma)$ is a monotonically increasing function, the constraint $(\mathcal{P}_1\text{b})$ can be redefined as

$$\sigma_i \geq \mathbb{P}_{(i,j)}^{-1}(\tau) = \frac{\alpha_i (d_{(i,j)}^s)^{\alpha_i} n_0}{2G_{(i,j)} \left(1 - \frac{2}{\alpha_i}\right)} \left[1 + \frac{\alpha_i \sin\left(\frac{2\pi}{\alpha_i}\right)}{2\pi^2 \lambda_i (d_{(i,j)}^s)^2} \ln \tau \right].$$

We remark that σ_i is bounded by the maximum of the $\mathbb{P}_{(i,j)}^{-1}(\tau)$, which is determined by the farthest link from node i . Combined with $\sigma_i \geq 0$, the constraint can be given by

$$\sigma_i \geq \tau_i = \frac{\alpha_i (d_i^{\max})^{\alpha_i} n_0}{2G_{(i,j)} \left(1 - \frac{2}{\alpha_i}\right)} \left[1 + \frac{\alpha_i \sin\left(\frac{2\pi}{\alpha_i}\right)}{2\pi^2 \lambda_i (d_i^{\max})^2} \ln \tau \right] \quad (23)$$

where $d_i^{\max} = \max_{j:(i,j) \in \mathcal{E}} x_{(i,j)} d_{(i,j)}^s$.

Then, Problem $\mathcal{P}_3$ can be simplified as

$$\mathcal{P}_3 : \max_{\mathbf{P}, \eta} \eta \quad (\mathcal{P}_3\text{a})$$

$$\text{s.t. } \eta \sum_{j \in \mathcal{N}} \sum_{u \in \mathcal{U}} \frac{x_{(i,j),u} h_u}{\gamma_{(i,j)}} \leq B, \quad (\mathcal{P}_3\text{b})$$

$$\rho_i + \sigma_i \leq P_i^{\max}, \quad \rho_i \geq P_i^{\min}, \quad \sigma_i \geq \tau_i. \quad (\mathcal{P}_3\text{c})$$

With $A_i = \sum_{j \in \mathcal{N}} \sum_{u \in \mathcal{U}} \frac{x_{(i,j),u} h_u}{\gamma_{(i,j)}}$, the Lagrangian of $\mathcal{P}_3$ is

$$\begin{aligned} \mathcal{L}(\mathbf{P}, \eta, \boldsymbol{\lambda}, \boldsymbol{\mu}, \boldsymbol{\nu}, \boldsymbol{\xi}) = & \eta - \sum_{i \in \mathcal{I}} \lambda_i (B - \eta A_i) - \sum_{i \in \mathcal{I}} \xi_i (\sigma_i - \tau_i) \\ & - \sum_{i \in \mathcal{I}} \mu_i (P_i^{\max} - \rho_i - \sigma_i) - \sum_{i \in \mathcal{I}} \nu_i (\rho_i - P_i^{\min}). \end{aligned} \quad (24)$$

Then, the derivatives of Lagrangian function are provided as

$$\begin{aligned} \frac{\partial \mathcal{L}}{\partial \eta} = & 1 - \sum_{i \in \mathcal{I}} \lambda_i \sum_{j \in \mathcal{N}} \sum_{u \in \mathcal{U}} \frac{x_{(i,j),u} h_u}{\gamma_{(i,j)}} = 0, \\ \frac{\partial \mathcal{L}}{\partial \rho_i} = & -\lambda_i \eta \frac{\partial A_i}{\partial \rho_i} - \mu_i + \nu_i = 0, \quad \frac{\partial \mathcal{L}}{\partial \sigma_i} = -\mu_i + \xi_i = 0. \end{aligned} \quad (25)$$

Also, the complementary slackness condition indicates $\nu_i = 0$ and $\sigma_i > 0$ since the nodes in the network can transmit signal to another node.

Suppose $\sigma_i > \tau_i$ for all $i \in \mathcal{I}$, meaning that we allocate more jamming power than the threshold. Then, we have $\xi_i = \mu_i = 0$ by the complementary slackness condition. Plugging $\mu_i = 0$ into $\frac{\partial \mathcal{L}}{\partial \rho_i}$ yields $\nu_i = -\lambda_i \eta \frac{\partial A_i}{\partial \rho_i} \geq 0$ as $\frac{\partial A_i}{\partial \rho_i} < 0$. If $\nu_i > 0$, then $\rho_i = P_i^{\min}$ by complementary slackness. Then, $\rho_i + \sigma_i < P_i^{\max}$ since $\mu_i = 0$, so decreasing σ_i and increasing ρ_i keeps feasibility, strictly decreases A_i allows a larger η , which is a contradiction. Thus, $\sigma_i = \tau_i$ holds at optimum.

Constraint $(\mathcal{P}_3\text{c})$ now can be viewed as $\rho_i \leq P_i^{\max} - \tau_i$. If we assume $\rho_i < P_i^{\max} - \tau_i$ for $i \in \mathcal{I}$, then $\mu_i = 0$ to satisfy the complementary slackness condition. Again, we obtain $\lambda_i = 0$ to meet the optimality condition $\frac{\partial \mathcal{L}}{\partial \rho_i}$, which contradicts $\frac{\partial \mathcal{L}}{\partial \eta}$.

Combining the above conditions, the optimal transmission and jamming power, ρ_i^* and σ_i^* , are given as

$$\rho_i^* = P_i^{\max} - \tau_i, \quad \sigma_i^* = \tau_i, \quad \forall i \in \mathcal{I}, \quad (26)$$

for τ_i in (23). We correspondingly denote the optimal spectral efficiency as $\gamma_{(i,j)}^*$ by putting ρ_i^* into (9).

The following theorem guarantees that the RRM in (22) and (26) is optimal for the given graph $\mathcal{G}$.

Theorem 1 (Optimality of RRM). *Let $\mathcal{G}$ be a fixed feasible network topology. Then, the solution $(\beta_{(i,j),u}^*, \rho_i^*, \sigma_i^*)$ obtained by solving $\mathcal{P}_1$ under the given $\mathcal{G}$ is globally optimal for the fixed-topology RRM subproblem, provided that $P_i^{\max} - \tau_i \geq P_i^{\min}$ for transmitters with outgoing routed links.*

Proof. The proof is provided in Appendix E. $\square$

D. Load-Aware Dual-Price Routing via Self-Supervised GNN

We propose **LOAD** to optimize the routing topology under the closed-form optimal RRM. Fig. 2 and Algorithm 1 present the overall flow of **LOAD** and its routing procedure, respectively. By Theorem 1, the RRM variables are optimally determined for any fixed feasible topology $\mathcal{G}$. After substituting (22) and (26), $\mathcal{P}_1$ reduces to the routing problem

$$\min_{\mathcal{G}} \max_{i \in \mathcal{I}} L_i(\mathcal{G}) \text{ s.t. } (\mathcal{P}_1\text{b}), (\mathcal{P}_1\text{c}), \quad (27)$$

where $L_i(\mathcal{G}) = \frac{1}{B_i} \sum_{j \in \mathcal{N}} \sum_{u \in \mathcal{U}} \frac{x_{(i,j),u} h_u}{\gamma_{(i,j)}^*}$ is the bandwidth-normalized relay load of transmitter i per unit of common end-to-end throughput. Under the optimal power allocation in (26), achieving a common end-to-end throughput η requires transmitter i to use a fraction $\eta L_i(\mathcal{G})$ of its available bandwidth. Thus, the largest $L_i(\mathcal{G})$ identifies the network bottleneck, and routing seeks a topology that minimizes this maximum load.

To obtain an equivalent formulation without explicit constraints, we characterize the feasible routing domain induced jointly by $(\mathcal{P}_1\text{b})$ and $(\mathcal{P}_1\text{c})$. The SPSC constraint $(\mathcal{P}_1\text{b})$ restricts each outgoing link of node i to

$$d_{(i,j)}^s \leq D_i^{\max}, \quad \forall j \in \mathcal{N}, \quad (28)$$

where $D_i^{\max}$ is the farthest allowable link distance under the maximum jamming power density $P_i^{\max} - P_i^{\min}$. Then, routing is restricted to the edge set $\mathcal{E}_\tau$ defined by (28) to meet the SPSC constraint. The ST constraint $(\mathcal{P}_1\text{c})$ then restricts the feasible routing graphs to $\mathcal{G}_\tau$, the set of spanning trees supported on $\mathcal{E}_\tau$. Since every $\mathcal{G} \in \mathcal{G}_\tau$ satisfies both constraints, (27) is equivalently written as

$$\min_{\mathcal{G} \in \mathcal{G}_\tau} \max_{i \in \mathcal{I}} L_i(\mathcal{G}). \quad (29)$$

Dual-price interpretation. For a fixed routing graph $\mathcal{G}$, the minimax load objective $\max_{i \in \mathcal{I}} L_i(\mathcal{G})$ can be reformulated by introducing an auxiliary variable t as

$$\min_t t \text{ s.t. } L_i(\mathcal{G}) \leq t, \quad \forall i \in \mathcal{I}. \quad (30)$$

Let $\pi_i \geq 0$ be the dual price associated with the load constraint of relay i . The Lagrangian of (30) can be rearranged as

$$\mathcal{L}_{\mathcal{G}}(t, \pi) = \sum_{i \in \mathcal{I}} \pi_i L_i(\mathcal{G}) + (1 - \sum_{i \in \mathcal{I}} \pi_i) t, \quad (31)$$

We remark that the dual function $\inf_t \mathcal{L}_{\mathcal{G}}(t, \pi)$ has a finite value only if $\sum_{i \in \mathcal{I}} \pi_i = 1$. Thus, the dual feasible set is

$$\Delta = \{\pi \mid \pi_i \geq 0, \sum_{i \in \mathcal{I}} \pi_i = 1\}. \quad (32)$$

For feasible $\pi \in \Delta$, the lower bound of (31) is $\sum_{i \in \mathcal{I}} \pi_i L_i(\mathcal{G})$. Since problem (30) has a linear objective and constraints, the duality gap is zero, which implies $\max_{i \in \mathcal{I}} L_i(\mathcal{G}) = \max_{\pi \in \Delta} \sum_{i \in \mathcal{I}} \pi_i L_i(\mathcal{G})$. Thus, (29) is equivalent to

$$\min_{\mathcal{G} \in \mathcal{G}_\tau} \max_{\pi \in \Delta} \sum_{i \in \mathcal{I}} \pi_i L_i(\mathcal{G}). \quad (33)$$

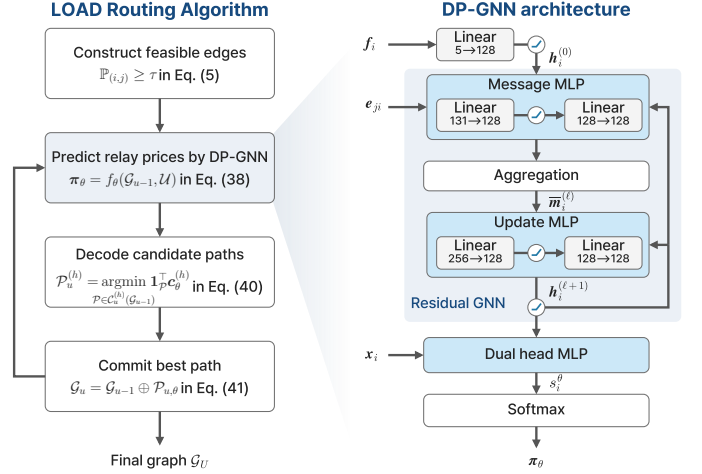


Fig. 2. Flowchart of the **LOAD** routing algorithm and DP-GNN architecture.

Now, we convert (33) into a per-user path selection problem, as directly searching over all feasible graphs remains combinatorial. Let $\mathcal{P}_u$ denote the source-to-user path graph for user $u \in \mathcal{U}$. Then, the routing graph can be expressed as

$$\mathcal{G} = \mathcal{G}_U \text{ for } \mathcal{G}_u = \mathcal{G}_{u-1} \oplus \mathcal{P}_u, \quad \forall u \in \mathcal{U} \quad (34)$$

where $\oplus$ denotes graph merging operator. Accordingly, (33) can be represented as the sequential path-selection problem:

$$v(\mathcal{G}_u) = \min_{\{\mathcal{P}_v\}_{v=u+1}^U} \max_{\pi \in \Delta} \sum_{i \in \mathcal{I}} \pi_i L_i(\mathcal{G}_u \oplus \mathcal{P}_{u+1} \oplus \dots \oplus \mathcal{P}_U), \quad (35)$$

$$v(\mathcal{G}_{u-1}) = \min_{\mathcal{P}_u} v(\mathcal{G}_{u-1} \oplus \mathcal{P}_u) \text{ s.t. } \mathcal{G}_{u-1} \oplus \mathcal{P}_u \in \mathcal{G}_\tau, \quad (36)$$

Finding the exact solution of (36) is computationally intractable since evaluating $v(\mathcal{G}_{u-1} \oplus \mathcal{P}_u)$ requires optimizing over all feasible path combinations of the remaining users $\{u+1, \dots, U\}$. Therefore, **LOAD** replaces the exact future-path evaluation with a one-step surrogate derived from the dual representation in (33). Specifically, the cost-to-go of a candidate path is approximated by the dual-weighted load of the post-decision graph:

$$v(\mathcal{G}_{u-1} \oplus \mathcal{P}) \approx \pi_\theta^\top \mathbf{L}(\mathcal{G}_{u-1} \oplus \mathcal{P}), \quad (37)$$

where $\mathbf{L}(\mathcal{G}_{u-1} \oplus \mathcal{P}) = [L_i(\mathcal{G}_{u-1} \oplus \mathcal{P})]_{i \in \mathcal{I}}$. Here, π_θ is a prospective relay price predicted by the dual-price GNN (DP-GNN) parameterized by θ , replacing the unknown dual price of the completed graph in (33). **LOAD** predicts this price from the current partial graph as

$$\pi_\theta = f_\theta(\mathcal{G}_{u-1}, \mathcal{U}), \quad \pi_\theta \in \Delta. \quad (38)$$

From the definition of $L_i(\mathcal{G})$, when user u has hop count h , selecting edge (i, j) adds $h/(B_i \gamma_{(i,j)}^*)$ to the load of transmitter i . Therefore, under the prospective relay price π_θ , the weighted load contribution of edge (i, j) is

$$c_{\theta, (i,j)}^{(h)} = \pi_{\theta, i} \frac{h}{B_i \gamma_{(i,j)}^*}, \quad (i, j) \in \mathcal{E}_\tau. \quad (39)$$

Let $\mathbf{c}_\theta^{(h)} = [c_{\theta, (i,j)}^{(h)}]_{(i,j) \in \mathcal{E}_\tau}$ denote the hop-conditioned edge-cost vector. Since the hop count of the selected path is not known until selecting the path, **LOAD** builds a separate

Algorithm 1 LOAD routing**Require:** Nodes $\mathcal{N}$, users $\mathcal{U}$, trained DP-GNN f_θ **Ensure:** Routing graph $\mathcal{G}_U$

- 1: Construct the SPSC-feasible edge set $\mathcal{E}_\tau$ by (28)
- 2: Initialize $\mathcal{G}_0 \leftarrow (\{0\}, \emptyset)$
- 3: **for** $u = 1, \dots, U$ **do**
- 4: Compute $\mathbf{L}(\mathcal{G}_{u-1})$ via $(\beta_{(i,j),u}^*, \rho_i^*, \sigma_i^*)$ in (22) and (26)
- 5: Predict the prospective relay price π_θ by DP-GNN
- 6: **for** each admissible hop count $h \in \mathcal{H}_u$ **do**
- 7: Compute $\mathbf{c}_\theta^{(h)}$ by (39)
- 8: Decode $\mathcal{P}_u^{(h)}$ by solving (40)
- 9: **end for**
- 10: Select $\mathcal{P}_{u,\theta}$ and update $\mathcal{G}_u$ by (41)
- 11: **end for**
- 12: **return** $\mathcal{G}_U$

edge-cost vector for each admissible hop count in $\mathcal{H}_u = \{H_{\min}, H_{\min} + 1, \dots\}$, where $H_{\min}$ is the smallest possible hop. For each admissible hop count $h \in \mathcal{H}_u$, we have

$$\mathcal{P}_u^{(h)} = \underset{\mathcal{P} \in \mathcal{C}_u^{(h)}(\mathcal{G}_{u-1})}{\operatorname{argmin}} \mathbf{1}_{\mathcal{P}}^\top \mathbf{c}_\theta^{(h)}. \quad (40)$$

Here, $\mathcal{C}_u^{(h)}(\mathcal{G}_{u-1})$ denotes the feasible h -hop source-to-user paths whose addition preserves $\mathcal{G}_\tau$, and $\mathbf{1}_{\mathcal{P}}$ is the edge-incidence vector of $\mathcal{P}$ over $\mathcal{E}_\tau$. For each $h \in \mathcal{H}_u$, (40) finds the minimum-cost feasible path with exactly h hops in $\mathcal{O}(h|\mathcal{E}_\tau|)$ time. **LOAD** then selects the path with the lowest cost across all admissible hop counts, where

$$\mathcal{P}_{u,\theta} = \mathcal{P}_u^{(h^*)}, \mathcal{G}_u = \mathcal{G}_{u-1} \oplus \mathcal{P}_{u,\theta}. \quad (41)$$

DP-GNN architecture. DP-GNN predicts π_θ by considering the current graph $\mathcal{G}_{u-1}$ and remaining users $\{u, u+1, \dots, U\}$. We formulate the input of DP-GNN as node features $\mathbf{x}_i$, edge features $\mathbf{e}_{ji}$, and future features $\mathbf{f}_i$. Let $\mathcal{N}_\tau(i)$ be the set of neighbor nodes. For $i \in \mathcal{I}$ and $j \in \mathcal{N}_\tau(i)$, the features are

$$\begin{aligned} \mathbf{x}_i &= [i, \mathcal{G}_{u-1}, L_i(\mathcal{G}_{u-1}), B_i, P_i^{\max}, \alpha_i]^\top, \\ \mathbf{e}_{ji} &= \left[\log(1 + d_{(j,i)}^s), 1 - \frac{d_{(j,i)}^s}{D_j^{\max}}, \mathbf{1}_{(j,i) \in \mathcal{E}(\mathcal{G}_{u-1})} \right]^\top, \\ \mathbf{f}_i &= [o_i, h_i, \ell_i, d_i, c_i]^\top. \end{aligned} \quad (42)$$

where o_i , h_i , ℓ_i , d_i , and c_i denote the expected path occupancy, hop mass, load, child-link distance, and serving user count, respectively. These expectations are computed from the minimum-hop and minimum-distance paths obtained using Dijkstra's algorithm to capture the load that potential users $\{u, \dots, U\}$ may impose on relay i before being connected. The two paths only summarize the demand of future users, while the final routes are determined by the primal decoder.

The feature $\mathbf{f}_i$ is first embedded into a 128-dimensional state as $\mathbf{h}_i^{(0)} = \operatorname{ReLU}(\mathbf{W}_f \mathbf{f}_i + \mathbf{b}_f)$ and refined by the GNN layers. For $\ell = \{0, \dots, 4\}$, DP-GNN aggregates edge-conditioned neighbor messages and applies a residual update as

$$\begin{aligned} \bar{\mathbf{m}}_i^{(\ell)} &= \frac{1}{|\mathcal{N}_\tau(i)|} \sum_{j \in \mathcal{N}_\tau(i)} \operatorname{MLP}_{\text{msg}}^{(\ell)}([h_j^{(\ell)} \parallel \mathbf{e}_{ji}]), \\ \mathbf{h}_i^{(\ell+1)} &= \operatorname{ReLU}(\operatorname{MLP}_{\text{upd}}^{(\ell)}([h_i^{(\ell)} \parallel \bar{\mathbf{m}}_i^{(\ell)}]) + \mathbf{h}_i^{(\ell)}). \end{aligned} \quad (43)$$

For each $i \in \mathcal{I}$, the dual head combines $\mathbf{h}_i^{(5)}$ with $\mathbf{x}_i$ to produce a logit, which is then normalized across relays by a softmax function, where

$$s_i^\theta = \operatorname{MLP}_{\text{dual}}([x_i \parallel \mathbf{h}_i^{(5)}]), \pi_{\theta,i} = \frac{\exp(s_i^\theta)}{\sum_{k \in \mathcal{I}} \exp(s_k^\theta)}. \quad (44)$$

By construction, the softmax normalization ensures $\pi_{\theta,i} > 0$ and $\sum_{i \in \mathcal{I}} \pi_{\theta,i} = 1$, such that π_θ automatically satisfies the simplex constraint $\pi_\theta \in \Delta$ in (32).

Self-supervised learning for bottleneck-aligned dual price.

The prospective dual price π_θ is not directly available as a training label since the exact price depends on the unknown future routing decisions. However, π_θ affects routing only through the reduced edge costs in (39), which determine the paths in (40). It is therefore sufficient to train the path preference induced by π_θ rather than reproduce the unavailable dual price itself. The closed-form RRM solutions in (22) and (26) provide this supervision by evaluating the bottleneck load of each candidate path without requiring further optimization.

For the current partial graph $\mathcal{G}_{u-1}$, let $\{\mathcal{P}_1, \dots, \mathcal{P}_K\} \subset \mathcal{C}_u(\mathcal{G}_{u-1})$ denote the candidate paths for user u , and let h_k denote the hop count of $\mathcal{P}_k$. The reduced cost induced by π_θ defines the predicted path preference as

$$p_{\theta,k} = \frac{\exp(-\mathbf{1}_{\mathcal{P}_k}^\top \mathbf{c}_\theta^{(h_k)})}{\sum_{\ell=1}^K \exp(-\mathbf{1}_{\mathcal{P}_\ell}^\top \mathbf{c}_\theta^{(h_\ell)})}. \quad (45)$$

The analytical target is constructed from the post-decision bottleneck load as

$$b_k = \|\mathbf{L}(\mathcal{G}_{u-1} \oplus \mathcal{P}_k)\|_\infty, \quad q_k = \frac{\exp(-b_k)}{\sum_{\ell=1}^K \exp(-b_\ell)}. \quad (46)$$

Thus, $\mathbf{q}$ assigns greater preference to candidate paths that produce smaller bottleneck loads. In implementation, the candidate costs and bottleneck loads are normalized within each candidate set before applying their respective softmax temperatures, as detailed in Appendix F.

DP-GNN is trained to match this analytical path preference and regularize the predicted prices toward a reference distribution, where the training objective is

$$\mathcal{J}(\theta) = D_{\text{KL}}(\mathbf{q} \parallel \mathbf{p}_\theta) + \lambda D_{\text{KL}}(\pi^{\text{base}} \parallel \pi_\theta). \quad (47)$$

The first term aligns the path ranking induced by the reduced costs with the analytical bottleneck ranking; and the second term regularizes π_θ toward the reference price distribution π^{base} specified in Appendix F.

V. NUMERICAL EXPERIMENTS

This section addresses the following research questions:

RQ 1. How accurate is the closed-form approximation of the SPSC probability? $\rightarrow$ Sec. V-B

RQ 2. How does the max-min throughput in SAGSIN change when security parameters change? $\rightarrow$ Sec. V-D

RQ 3. How does **LOAD** perform on position-data-driven testbeds? $\rightarrow$ Sec. V-E

Following the experimental configuration in Sec. V-A, Secs. V-B, V-D, and V-E address RQs 1–3, respectively. Experiments use Python 3.12 on an AMD Ryzen 9 5800X.

A. Experimental Configuration

SAGSIN configurations. Physical layer parameters for SAGSIN are configured as in Table II, referring to [38], [39] and the 3GPP standard [40]. The default Eve density is set as $(\lambda_1, \lambda_2, \lambda_3, \lambda_4) = (10^{-3}, 2 \cdot 10^{-3}, 3 \cdot 10^{-4}, 10^{-4})$ following the literature [41]. We randomly deploy 150 ground base stations, 150 maritime base stations, 12 HAP stations, and 10 LEO satellites within a geographic area spanning 30° in longitude and 20° in latitude to serve 60 users.

TABLE II
SIMULATION PARAMETERS

Parameter (Unit)	Ground (G), Maritime (M), HAPs (H)	LEO
Carrier frequency (GHz)	14	20
Total bandwidth (MHz)	250	400
Tx power (dBm)	30	21.5
Tx antenna gain (dBi)	43.2 (G,M,H→LEO) 25 (G,M,H→G,M,H)	38.5
Rx antenna gain (dBi)	39.7 (G,M,H→LEO) 25 (G,M,H→G,M,H)	38.5
Antenna gain-to-noise temperature (dB/K)	1.5 (H→LEO), 16.2 (H→G,M,H) 1.2 (G,M→LEO), 15.9 (G,M→G,M,H)	13
Pathloss exponent	2.8 (G), 2.7 (M), 2.6 (H)	2.4

Data-driven testbed setup. We evaluate the framework on position-data-driven testbeds in the Mozambique-Madagascar Channel and Southern North America.³ Positions of ground, maritime, HAP, and LEO nodes are obtained from OPEN-CELLID, MARINETRAFFIC, STRATOCAT's Project Loon records [42], and CELESTRAK's Starlink ephemerides, respectively. The ground, maritime, and LEO snapshots use 2025-04-22 13:00 UTC, and the HAP snapshots use 2020-09-28 10:00 UTC for Mozambique-Madagascar and 2020-07-29 00:00 UTC for Southern North America.⁴

Baselines. We compare **LOAD** with the following routing schemes using the RRM formulation in Sec. IV.

- **Exhaustive search:** Serves as the sampling-based reference. It repeatedly constructs candidate routing trees from randomized edge costs, processes users in randomized orders, and reports the best max-min throughput. The number of exhaustive search trials is set to 5,000.
- **Edge-cost MLP/GNN:** Learns positive edge costs from routing-state and link features. The MLP scores edges independently, whereas the GNN first performs message passing over the feasible graph; shortest-path decoding under the learned costs then produces candidates that are committed using the same tree-preserving throughput evaluation.
- **Message passing:** A training-free path-replacement baseline that samples feasible source-to-user paths and iteratively accepts tree-preserving replacements that improve the analytical throughput. Its message-passing update, implementation, and finite-candidate routing-gap bound are detailed in Appendix H.

³For Figs. 8-10, the SAGSIN networks are additionally generated over terrain-informed geographic regions at multiple latitudes and longitudes with randomized node positions.

⁴Since no operational datasets for HAP base stations are currently available, the HAP nodes were synthesized with temporal adjustments.

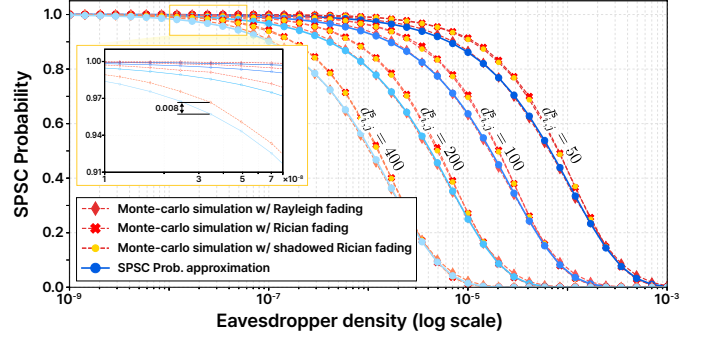


Fig. 3. The SPSC probability versus Eve density for four link distances. The Monte-Carlo curves use Rayleigh, Rician ($K_{dB} = 8$), and shadowed-Rician ($K_{dB} = 8$, $m = 3$) fading.

- **Hierarchical genetic:** Uses a canonical genetic algorithm with elitism [43] in a hierarchical node-then-edge search [44], [45]. Optional relay nodes are binary-encoded as genes, and each selected-node subgraph is decoded into randomized shortest-path that satisfies $(\mathcal{P}_{1c})$ and (28). The implementation uses 2,000 generations, population size 50, six mating parents, four kept parents, 5% mutation probability, and early stopping after 100 non-improving generations.
- **Greedy:** Iteratively selects the relay path that maximizes immediate throughput gain of the user.
- **Fixed-metric shortest paths:** Construct the routing tree from a single shortest-path predecessor map under the following fixed edge cost metrics: **Min-distance** uses link distance, **Min-hop** assigns unit cost to every edge, and **Max-SE** uses a spectral-efficiency of links.

Baseline interpretation. **Greedy** uses **LOAD**'s throughput evaluation but selects each path according to its immediate throughput gain, without accounting for the demand of users that remain unrouted. **Edge-cost MLP/GNN** use parameter counts of the same order as **LOAD** but omit prospective demand information and the relay-level dual-price structure; the MLP scores edges separately, whereas the GNN conditions its scores on graph context. **Message passing** performs iterative tree-structured load recomputation and multi-user path refinement without a learned predictor; its comparison with **LOAD** offers insight into the role of learned prediction. Together, these baselines cover complementary routing designs under the same optimal RRM framework. Appendix F details **LOAD** and the edge-cost MLP/GNN baselines.

B. RQ1: Accuracy of the SPSC Approximation

To address RQ1, we compare the closed-form approximation with Monte-Carlo estimates in the probability domain and in the derived jamming-power requirement used to construct the SPSC-feasible graph.

1) *The SPSC approximation over various fading schemes:* Fig. 3 compares 50,000 Monte-Carlo evaluations of (5) with calibrated closed-form curves based on (17) for four representative link lengths of $\{50, 100, 200, 400\}$ km.⁵

⁵For the plotted approximation, κ_i is calibrated as κ_i^c using the Rayleigh Monte-Carlo samples. The Rician and shadowed-Rician curves are reported only as sensitivity results.

At the four tested distances, the calibrated Rayleigh curves follow the corresponding Monte-Carlo estimates over the Eve-density sweep, with a maximum absolute gap below 0.008. This value applies to the four fixed-distance sweeps and does not bound the error at intermediate link distances. In the same tests, the Rician and shadowed-Rician estimates are no lower than their Rayleigh counterparts, making Rayleigh the conservative one among the three evaluated fading models.

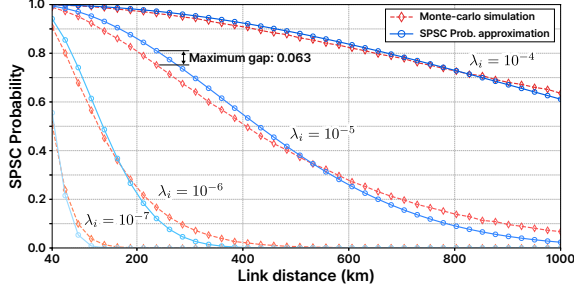


Fig. 4. The SPSC probability versus link distance for various Eve densities.

2) *Accuracy of the SPSC approximation over link distance:* Fig. 4 evaluates the calibrated functional form against 50,000 Monte-Carlo simulations of (5) while varying link distance from 40 to 1,000 km for four Eve densities $\{10^{-4}, 10^{-5}, 10^{-6}, 10^{-7}\} \text{ km}^{-2}$. The maximum absolute gap is 0.063 around 320 km when $\lambda_i = 10^{-5}$. Unlike the 0.008 gap in Fig. 3, this value is obtained by sweeping distance at fixed Eve densities and therefore measures a different interpolation regime. The error is concentrated where the SPSC changes most rapidly with distance, while the approximation retains the density ordering and the decreasing distance trend.

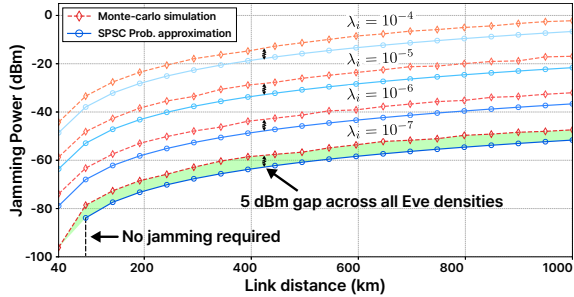


Fig. 5. Min jamming power over link distances for various Eve densities.

3) *Required jamming power versus link distance:* Fig. 5 plots the minimum jamming power required for the target SPSC probability $\tau = 0.999$. The results are obtained (i) from 500,000 Monte-Carlo evaluations of (5) and (ii) by inverting the SPSC approximation as in (23).⁶

Over the plotted nonzero-power regime, the approximation underestimates the required jamming power by approximately 5 dB. The direction of this power bias is consistent with the positive SPSC bias in the transition region of Fig. 4: overestimating the SPSC lowers the jamming-power requirement obtained by inversion. The implementation compensates for this bias by multiplying the approximation-derived jamming power

⁶The minimum jamming power is determined by bisection, with ten times as many Monte-Carlo trials as in Figs. 3 and 4.

by $10^{5/10} \simeq 3.162$ before power allocation and applying the same margin when computing the maximum link distance in (28). The correction reduces the power left for transmission and can remove marginal links, converting the measured bias into a conservative SPSC-feasible graph. Figs. 3-5 quantify the approximation error in the tested probability sweeps and its propagation to graph construction.

C. Training Dynamics and Decision Quality

To assess whether training improves routing decisions rather than merely reducing objective values, Fig. 6 reports the learning trajectories of **LOAD** and the edge-cost MLP/GNN baselines. All three policies reduce their respective losses and stabilize over the 30-epoch schedule. Because **LOAD** learns dual prices whereas the edge-cost models learn primal edge costs, their losses are not directly comparable; panels (a) and (b) show convergence only within each policy.

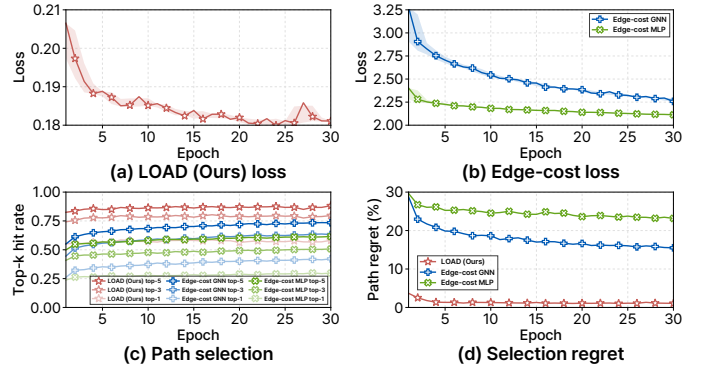


Fig. 6. Training trajectories over 30 epochs for **LOAD** and edge-cost baselines.

At epoch 30, **LOAD** attains top-1, top-3, and top-5 hit rates of 58.2%, 79.7%, and 88.2%, respectively, while its hard-selection regret—the committed top-1 path’s quality gap from the best candidate in the pool, normalized by the pool’s best-to-worst range—is 1.07%. The edge-cost GNN and MLP retain regrets of 15.5% and 23.2%, respectively.

These diagnostics establish the training state of the checkpoints used in the subsequent routing experiments; they are not interpreted as a direct comparison of final routing throughput.

D. RQ2: LOAD Performance under Security Variations

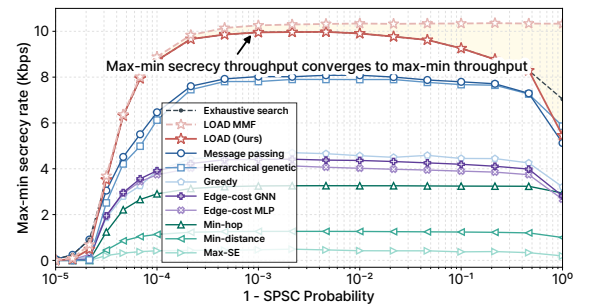


Fig. 7. Max-min throughput and secrecy rate versus SPSC outage probability; the yellow region shows their gap on **LOAD**-selected routes.

1) *Throughput-secrecy gap:* Figure 7 compares max-min throughput and secrecy rate on the **LOAD**-selected routes as

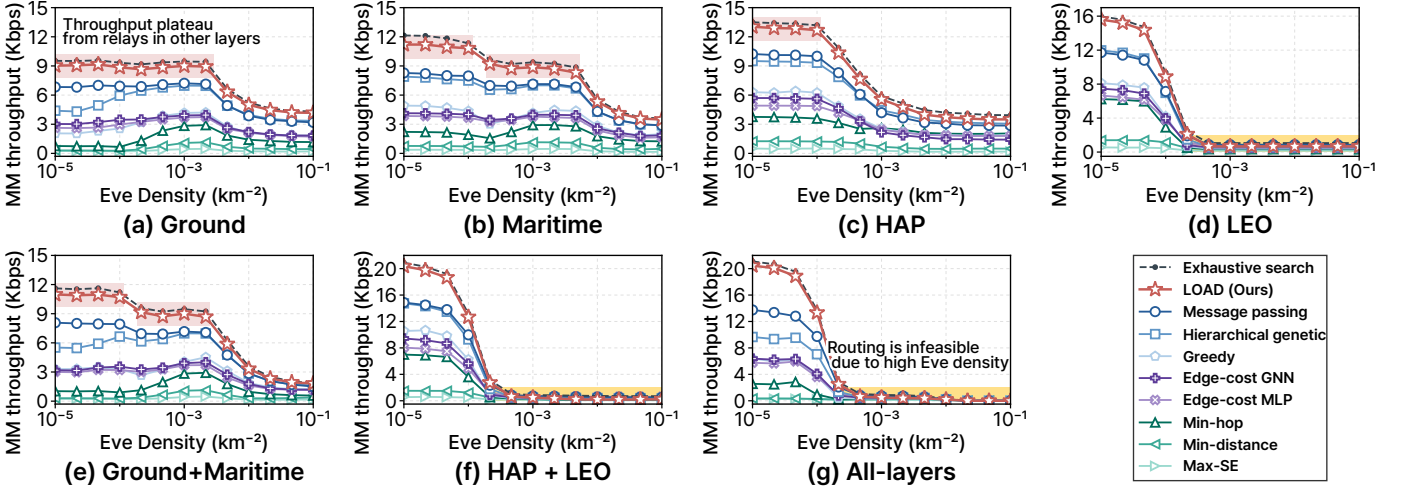


Fig. 8. Max-min throughput versus Eve density for various SAGSIN scenarios. Each graph depicts the max-min throughput while varying the Eve density of the network layer indicated in the caption. The densities of the remaining layers are fixed at their default values.

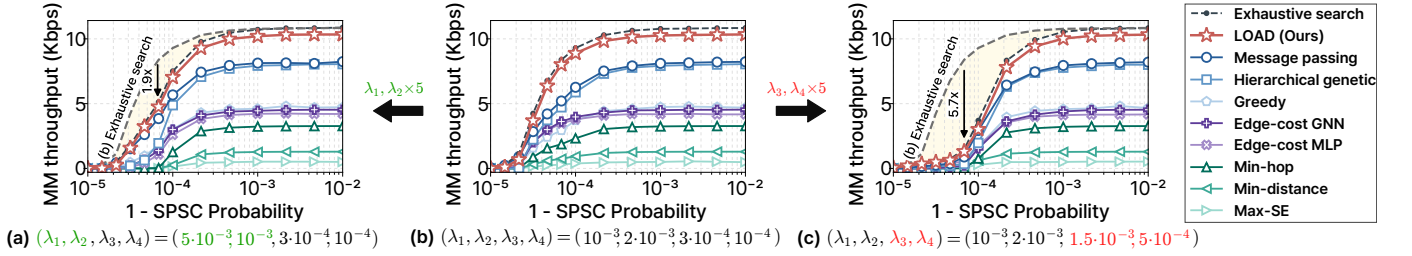


Fig. 9. Max-min throughput versus SPSC outage probability. (a), (b), and (c) measure max-min throughput of SAGSINs in the same environmental settings, except for the Eve densities. The gray dashed lines in (a) and (c) represent the numerical results from the **Exhaustive search** reference in (b), illustrating the relative throughput degradation as yellow areas.

the SPSC target varies. This comparison examines whether max-min throughput remains representative of secrecy performance after statistical security has been enforced through the SPSC constraint. Direct max-min secrecy-rate optimization would retain Eve-dependent rate terms throughout routing and RRM, whereas our formulation encodes their effect through SPSC-feasible links and the associated jamming requirements before optimizing throughput. When the SPSC constraint is relaxed, the discrepancy between the two metrics increases because the throughput objective is determined by legitimate-link rates and does not explicitly incorporate the achievable rate on the selected hops and making secrecy rate approach throughput. The relative gap is only 2.99% at $1 - \tau = 10^{-3}$. Since high SPSC targets are the operating regime of interest for mitigating eavesdropping risk [17], this agreement supports max-min throughput as a tractable surrogate for direct max-min secrecy-rate optimization in the high-security regime.

2) *Impact of Eve density:* Figure 8 shows how the max-min throughput changes when Eve densities in the various SAGSIN layers vary. The SPSC probability threshold τ is fixed at 99.99%. Across all panels, the max-min throughput generally increases as the swept Eve densities decrease. Lower Eve density can increase $D_i^{\max}$ in (28), retain more outgoing edges from the swept layers in $\mathcal{E}_\tau$, and enlarge the relay set over which the bottleneck load in (29) can be reduced.

The curves in Figs. 8a, b, and e plateau at low Eve densities

because the feasible edge sets of the ground and maritime layers stop expanding and further reductions provide diminishing RRM gains. Further throughput gains are then constrained by relay loads in the fixed-density layers. Conversely, in Fig. 8g, simultaneous link removal across all layers makes some users unreachable; all 1,000 topology realizations are infeasible at Eve densities of at least $2.15 \cdot 10^{-2} \text{ km}^{-2}$. The largest gains in Figs. 8d, 8f, and 8g occur as lower LEO-layer densities restore long-range LEO links, enabling fewer-hop routes with high spectral efficiency and relieving bottleneck relay loads.

3) *Impact of the SPSC probability threshold:* Figure 9 illustrates how the max-min throughput varies as the SPSC outage probability ($1 - \tau$) increases from 10^{-5} to 10^{-2} . The minimum transmit power P_i for each base station is set to 80% of its total available power. Relative to Fig. 9b, Figs. 9a and 9c increase the Eve densities of ground/maritime and HAP/LEO nodes, respectively, by a factor of five.

As $1 - \tau$ approaches zero, the stricter SPSC target reduces the admissible link range in (28), and the minimum throughput approaches zero. All 1,000 **LOAD** outputs at each plotted threshold connect every user retained in the feasible graph, so the near-zero tail reflects security-induced rate loss rather than a routing failure. Relative to Fig. 9b, increasing the ground/maritime Eve densities in Fig. 9a and the HAP/LEO Eve densities in Fig. 9c reduces throughput. The stronger sensitivity in Fig. 9c is consistent with the role of long-range LoS HAP/LEO links in connecting distant regions with relatively few hops.

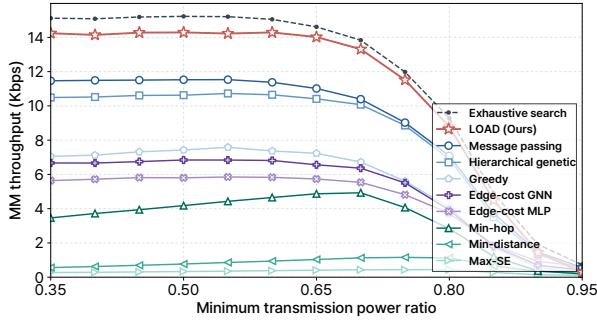


Fig. 10. Max-min throughput versus minimum transmit power ratio. The SPSC probability is set as $\tau = 0.9999$.

At $1 - \tau = 10^{-3}$ in Fig. 9b, **LOAD** maintains the highest mean throughput among the non-exhaustive baselines and outperforms **Message passing** and **Hierarchical genetic**. The separation becomes more evident as a relaxed SPSC constraint restores alternative routes, since throughput then depends on how each scheme distributes future contention across shared relays.

4) *Impact of minimum transmit-power constraint*: Figure 10 examines how the max-min throughput varies as the minimum transmission power ratio $P_i^{\min}/P_i^{\max}$ changes. For $0.35 \leq P_i^{\min}/P_i^{\max} \leq 0.65$, **LOAD** remains between 14.0 and 14.3 kbps, a variation of 1.9%; the learned and search-based baselines exhibit similar plateaus, whereas the fixed-metric shortest paths vary more substantially. This stable region indicates that the RRM in (26) can satisfy the minimum transmit-power constraint without materially changing the bottleneck allocation.

Beyond this region, a larger mandatory transmit-power allocation leaves less jamming power, reduces the admissible link distance in (28), removes edges from $\mathcal{E}_\tau$, and eventually makes some users unreachable. The fraction with zero throughput for every method rises from 34.95% at $P_i^{\min}/P_i^{\max} = 0.85$ to 64.65% at 0.90 and 80.8% at 0.95. The common failures therefore reflect physical infeasibility under the power split, rather than a routing failure or a computational benefit from reducing the search space.

Cross-setting interpretation. Across the density, SPSC, and power sweeps, the same separation emerges whenever the feasible graph retains several competing routes. **LOAD** uses prospective relay prices to account for the users that remain unrouted, thereby protecting shared relays before they become throughput bottlenecks. **Message passing** remains the closest

comparison because its repeated tree updates can redistribute load after contention appears. **Greedy** commits locally favorable paths without this future-load information, and the edge-cost schemes compress multi-user contention into link scores before shortest-path decoding. The recurring throughput gaps across the three sweeps show that feasible paths alone are insufficient; the routing metric must represent how a current commitment changes the relay capacity available to subsequent users. The inconsistent ordering between **Edge-cost MLP** and **Edge-cost GNN** further shows that graph context alone does not resolve this mismatch when remaining demand and relay-level load are absent from the decoding objective. At high Eve densities or minimum-power ratios, link removal leaves few alternative routes or makes users unreachable, so physical feasibility suppresses these design differences and causes the performance gaps to narrow or occasionally reverse. The repeated ordering links **LOAD**'s throughput gain to anticipatory relay coordination.

E. RQ3: Routing on Position-Data-Driven Testbeds

To address RQ3, Figs. 11 and 12 examine the routing solutions obtained on the Southern North America and Mozambique–Madagascar testbeds, respectively.

1) *Southern North America testbed*: Fig. 11 shows how the tested security conditions reshape the feasible graph used by **LOAD** on the Southern North America testbed. The Eve density and SPSC threshold determine the maximum link distances in (28), while the scenario-specific no-go rules remove additional edges. **LOAD** then uses the updated topology and remaining-user demand to predict relay prices and decode the feasible paths in Algorithm 1.

Under the moderate condition in Fig. 11b, long-range LEO links remain available. In Fig. 11c, the higher LEO-layer density and the removal of large-swing LEO links restrict LEO connectivity; **LOAD** then selects routes over the available edges. For the localized condition in Fig. 11d, links intersecting the high-density region are removed during graph construction, so the subsequent decoded routes avoid that region. The panels therefore distinguish security-driven feasibility constraints from relay-price-based route selection.

2) *Mozambique–Madagascar Testbed*: Fig. 12 compares the secure routing structures on the Mozambique–Madagascar testbed. In Figs. 12b and 12c, **LOAD** achieves 214.0 kbps, only 2.6% below the 219.6 kbps achieved by **Exhaustive search**. This small gap is important because max-min throughput is

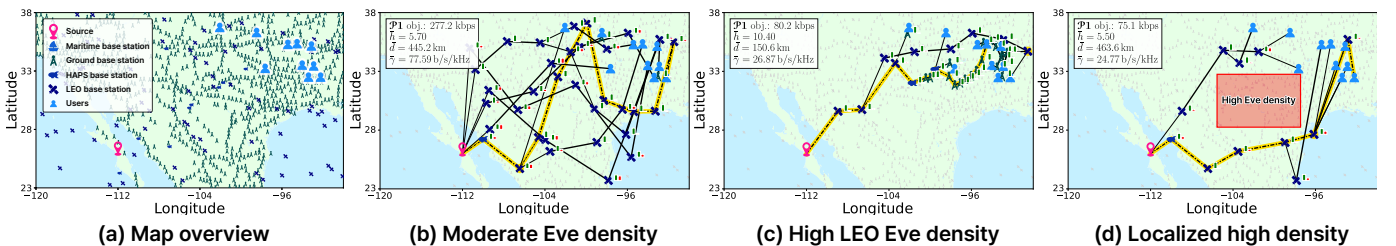


Fig. 11. Secure routing solutions obtained by **LOAD** on the Southern North America testbed. In (c), the LEO-layer Eve density is set to $4 \cdot 10^{-4} \text{ km}^{-2}$ and LEO links spanning more than 4.5° latitude are excluded. In (d), the Eve density in the red region in (a) is 1 km^{-2} and intersecting links are excluded.

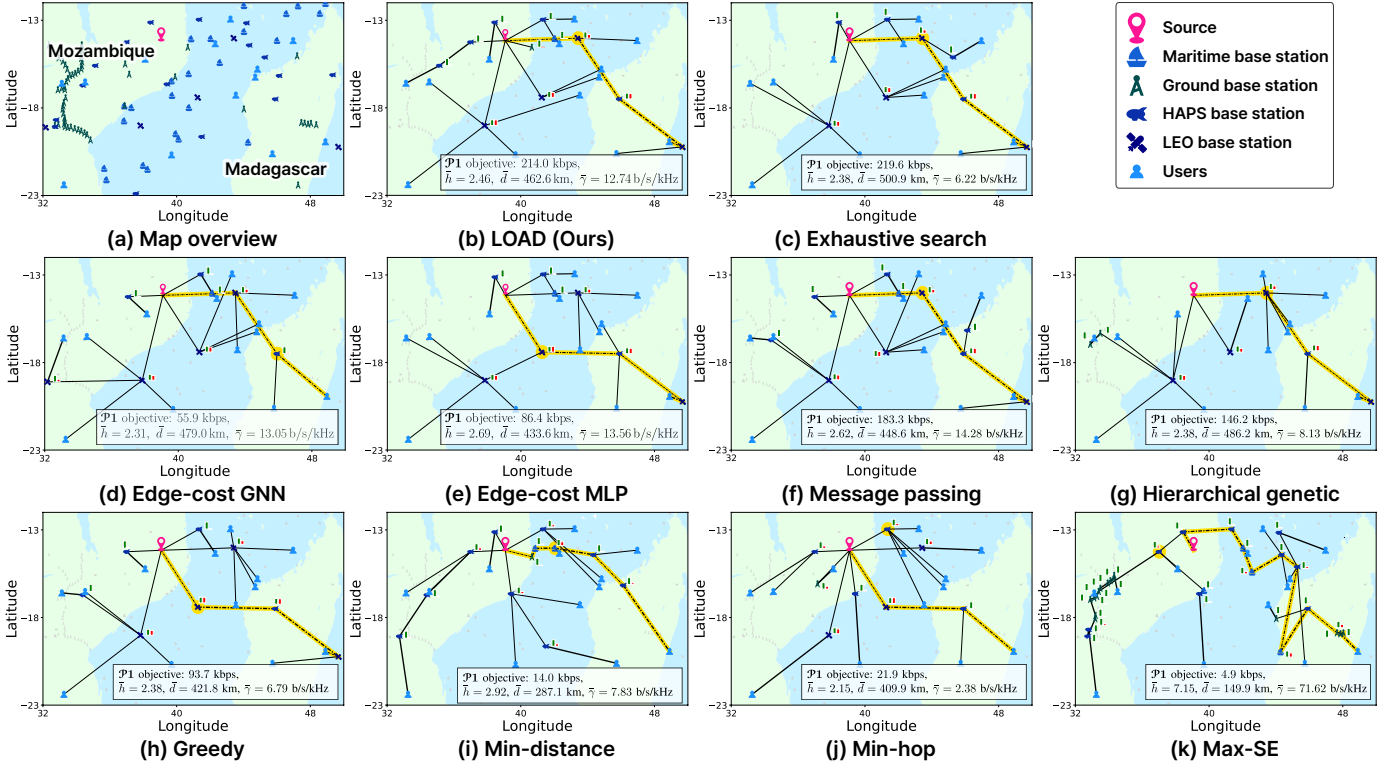


Fig. 12. Secure routing on the Mozambique–Madagascar testbed. The highlighted dashed path and node indicate the longest path and minimum-throughput node, respectively; $\bar{h}$, $\bar{d}$, and $\bar{\gamma}$ denote the average hop count, link distance, and spectral efficiency. The green and red node-adjacent bars show normalized transmission and jamming power, while link width indicates allocated bandwidth.

determined by the most heavily loaded relay, not by network-wide averages of hop count, link distance, or spectral efficiency. **Message passing** is the closest scalable baseline, while the locally committed and edge-cost routes leave substantially heavier bottleneck loads. The fixed geography makes the source of this difference explicit: multiple users depend on a small set of long-range relays, so an early path decision changes the capacity available to every downstream choice. Using the future-demand features in (42), **LOAD** raises the reduced costs in (39) for relays expected to become congested and preserves their capacity for later users. **Message passing** can partly recover this structure through repeated tree updates, but its corrections occur after contention has entered the routing tree. **Greedy** cannot anticipate the effect of its current commitment, and edge-cost decoding does not explicitly propagate future user demand into relay-level congestion. The higher MLP throughput relative to the GNN on this testbed shows that broader graph context is not sufficient unless the learned quantity represents the load-coupled routing objective.

VI. DISCUSSION

Conclusion. This paper developed a cross-layer framework for secure multi-hop relaying in SAGSINs by combining a calibrated SPSC approximation, closed-form optimal RRM, and **LOAD** routing. The calibrated approximation tracked Monte-Carlo results with maximum absolute gaps below 0.008 in the fixed-distance Eve-density sweeps and 0.063 in the link-distance sweep; its jamming-power bias was included as a conservative feasible-graph margin. At $1 - \tau = 10^{-3}$, the max-min

secrecy rate on **LOAD**-selected routes was within 2.99% of the corresponding max-min throughput, supporting the throughput objective as a practical surrogate in the evaluated high-security regime. Using prospective relay prices to account for the remaining user demand, **LOAD** averaged 10.3 kbps across 1,000 topologies at this operating point, compared with 8.1 kbps for **Message passing** and 7.9 kbps for **Hierarchical genetic**. Security sweeps showed how Eve density and the transmit-jamming power split shape feasible links and relay loads. On the position-data-driven testbeds, **LOAD** reached 214.0 kbps on Mozambique–Madagascar, 2.6% below **Exhaustive search**, and adapted its routes to layer-specific and localized security conditions in Southern North America. Together, these results support combining statistical security modeling, analytical resource allocation, and learned prospective relay prices for secure multi-user routing in SAGSINs.

Future research directions. Prospective prices for shared resources can be combined with model-based incremental costs in other graph-structured network decisions. Potential applications include reconfigurable intelligent surface-assisted connectivity, communication–computation routing in mobile edge computing, and traffic balancing across integrated satellite–terrestrial networks. Future work can address time-varying mobility, traffic, and security through online reconfiguration.

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